# Frequentist, Bayesian and Machine Learning Analysis of the Matter–Antimatter Asymmetry in $B^{\pm} \to K^{\pm}K^{+}K^{-}$ Decays at LHCb

**Final project for the *Statistics and Data Analysis* course**
**Academic Year 2025–2026**

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**[TODO: Giacomo + Marco, write last. 3–5 sentences: dataset (LHCb Open Data, $B^{\pm} \to K^{\pm}K^{+}K^{-}$), the three methodological approaches compared (frequentist MLE/profile likelihood, Bayesian MCMC, ML-assisted selection), the headline result ($A_{\text{raw}}$ estimate + consistency across methods), one sentence on what's new/interesting (e.g. goodness-of-fit model comparison, local Dalitz asymmetries). Don't give every number here – see §VIII guidance.]**

## I. INTRODUCTION

Charge-parity (CP) violation – the small observed asymmetry between the behavior of matter and antimatter – is one of the necessary ingredients for the matter-dominated universe we observe, yet the CP violation built into the Standard Model is far too small to account for it. Studying CP violation in the decays of $B$ mesons, where it is comparatively large and experimentally accessible, is one of the main ways to test the Standard Model's CKM description of the effect and search for physics beyond it. Charmless three-body decays such as $B^{\pm} \to h^{\pm}h^{+}h^{-}$ ($h = K, \pi$) are especially interesting in this respect: unlike a two-body decay, the three-body phase space (the Dalitz plot) allows the asymmetry to be studied not only as a single global number, but also *locally*, since interference between intermediate resonances can concentrate CP-violating effects in specific kinematic regions rather than spreading them uniformly [1, 2].

The quantity measured in this work is the raw asymmetry between the signal yields of the two charges,

$$A_{\text{raw}} = \frac{N(B^{-}) - N(B^{+})}{N(B^{-}) + N(B^{+})}. \tag{1}$$

It differs from the physical asymmetry $A_{CP}$ by the production asymmetry $A_P$ of $B^{\pm}$ mesons in $pp$ collisions and by the detection asymmetry $A_D$ of the final state; to first order in these small quantities,

$$A_{CP} \approx A_{\text{raw}} - A_P - A_D, \tag{2}$$

where $A_D$ arises mainly from the different interaction cross sections of $K^{+}$ and $K^{-}$ with the detector material and depends on the kaon momenta [1]. Neither correction is applied here, so $A_{\text{raw}}$ is not a measurement of $A_{CP}$.

In this work we use the LHCb Open Data record for $B^{\pm} \to K^{\pm}K^{+}K^{-}$ [3, 4] to address the question: *to what extent do frequentist likelihood fits, Bayesian inference, and machine-learning-assisted event selection produce consistent, well-controlled estimates of the raw asymmetry $A_{\text{raw}}$ in this decay?* The aim is not a competitive measurement of $A_{CP}$, but a methodological comparison of the three inference frameworks on the same data and the same physical question. Section II describes the dataset and the preselection common to the three analyses; Secs. III–V present the frequentist, Bayesian, and machine-learning analyses respectively; Sec. VI brings the three together.

## II. DATA

### A. Dataset and Preselection

The dataset is the CERN Open Data record 4900, "Matter Antimatter Differences – B meson decays to three hadrons" [3]: candidates for $B^{\pm} \to h^{\pm}h^{+}h^{-}$ decays collected by LHCb in 2011 at $\sqrt{s} = 7\,\text{TeV}$, reconstructed with the LHCb software and already passed through trigger and offline selection. The data are distributed as ROOT `TTree`s (`DecayTree`) containing only the most relevant reconstructed branches, split across two files by magnet polarity (magnet up/down), for a combined 8,556,118 candidates. The same record also includes a simplified, detector-response-free phase-space simulation of $B^{\pm} \to K^{\pm}K^{+}K^{-}$; it is not used in this work.

For each of the three final-state tracks ($H1$, $H2$, $H3$) the analysis reads momentum components (`PX`, `PY`, `PZ`), PID likelihoods (`ProbK`, `ProbPi`), a muon flag (`isMuon`), and the track charge. The same preselection is used in all three analyses: a kaon-PID requirement and a muon veto on every track,

$$\texttt{H*_ProbPi} < 0.5 \ \wedge \ \texttt{H*_ProbK} > 0.5 \ \wedge \ \neg\texttt{H*_isMuon},$$

which retains 23,895 of the 8,556,118 candidates (0.28%), the PID requirement being by far the dominant reduction.

In this dataset only the charge combinations $(+1, -1, -1)$ and $(-1, +1, +1)$ occur for $(H1, H2, H3)$: $H1$ is always the kaon of charge opposite to the $B$, and $H2$, $H3$ are the interchangeable same-sign pair. The Dalitz-plot variables are therefore the invariant masses of the two opposite-sign pairs, $m^2(H1, H2)$ and $m^2(H1, H3)$.

### B. Invariant Mass Reconstruction

The three final-state tracks are assigned the charged-kaon mass hypothesis ($M_K = 493.677$ MeV) regardless of their PID likelihoods, and their four-momenta are summed to reconstruct the $B$ candidate, $m(KKK) = \sqrt{(\sum_i E_i)^2 - |\sum_i \vec{p}_i|^2}$. The nominal fit window, common to the frequentist and Bayesian analyses, is $[5100, 5600]$ MeV. Below ∼5150 MeV the background rises, consistent with a partially reconstructed contribution that a single exponential cannot describe; the window includes the start of this rise, which is described by a second exponential in the background model (Secs. III–IV). This leaves 19,731 preselected candidates in the fit window: 10,292 with $B$-charge +1 and 9439 with $B$-charge −1, split 11,636 (magnet down) / 8095 (magnet up). **[TODO: ML window: the ML weak labels were built in the window of the simplified model, $[5150, 5450]$ MeV – decision pending (B2).]**

### C. Data Exploration

Figure I shows the reconstructed mass spectrum in the fit window, split by $B$ charge (left) and by magnet polarity (right). The spectrum peaks at $m \approx 5284$ MeV over a falling combinatorial background, with a similar shape for the two charges and the two magnet polarities. The charge-counting asymmetry of all candidates in the fit window, signal and background together, is $A_{\text{count}} = (N^- - N^+)/(N^- + N^+) = -0.043$.

## III. FREQUENTIST ANALYSIS

**[TODO: Marco – section intro: one or two sentences on the frequentist approach (unbinned ML fit with `iminuit`, profile likelihood). Subsections below still use "planned" wording; rewrite in the past tense with the results.]**

### A. Mass Model and Fit Strategy

The frequentist fit reuses the same physical mass model as the Bayesian analysis (Sec. IV A), $f(m) = N_s\, S(m;\theta_s) + N_b\, B(m;\theta_b)$, estimated by unbinned maximum likelihood (`iminuit`, `iminuit.cost.UnbinnedNLL`) rather than by MCMC. The plan is to start from the same minimal shapes as the Bayesian baseline (Gaussian signal, exponential background) and increase model complexity only if the residuals justify it – mirroring the Bayesian goodness-of-fit finding (Sec. IV E) that the minimal model is not fully adequate ($\chi^2/\text{ndof} = 2.36$) and that a Crystal Ball with floated tail parameters improves it. **[TODO: Marco – fill in once the mass fit is run: final signal/background shapes chosen, fitted yields $N_s, N_b$, and any residual-based justification for departing from the minimal model.]**

### B. Separate vs. Simultaneous Fit

Two parametrizations are planned: a *separate* fit of $B^+$ and $B^-$ independently, giving $N_s^+$ and $N_s^-$ from which $A_{\text{raw}}$ is computed post hoc, and a *simultaneous* fit using the shared parametrization $N_s^+ = N_s(1 - A)/2$, $N_s^- = N_s(1 + A)/2$ (the same parametrization already used on the Bayesian side, Sec. IV A) that estimates $A$ directly as a fit parameter. Mass, resolution, and background-shape parameters are treated as nuisance parameters, profiled out when reporting the uncertainty on $A$. **[TODO: Marco – report $A_{\text{raw}}$ from both parametrizations (should agree if the model is well-specified) and flag any disagreement as a modeling issue rather than a physics result.]**

### C. Profile Likelihood and Confidence Interval

The profile likelihood ratio,

$$q(A) = -2 \log \frac{L(A, \hat{\hat{\theta}})}{L(\hat{A}, \hat{\theta})},$$

is used to derive a confidence interval on $A$ via Wilks' theorem, and to test the null hypothesis $A = 0$ – the frequentist counterpart of the Bayesian Savage-Dickey test of Sec. IV D. **[TODO: Marco – report the MLE $\hat{A}$, the 68%/95% profile-likelihood confidence intervals, and the $p$-value/significance against $A = 0$; compare directly against the Bayesian credible interval of Sec. IV C ($A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0497$, 68% CI $[-0.058, -0.041]$) once available.]**

### D. Systematic Uncertainties

**[TODO: Marco – systematic-uncertainty study, analogous in spirit to the Bayesian systematic-variation table of Sec. IV F (Table III: mass window, background shape, signal-model choice), so the two can be placed side by side in Sec. VI and in Appendix A.]**

## IV. BAYESIAN ANALYSIS

**[TODO: This section still describes the simplified model ($[5150, 5450]$ MeV, single exponential, symmetric background): to be rewritten for the nominal model after the full run (Bayesian_Nominal.ipynb).]**

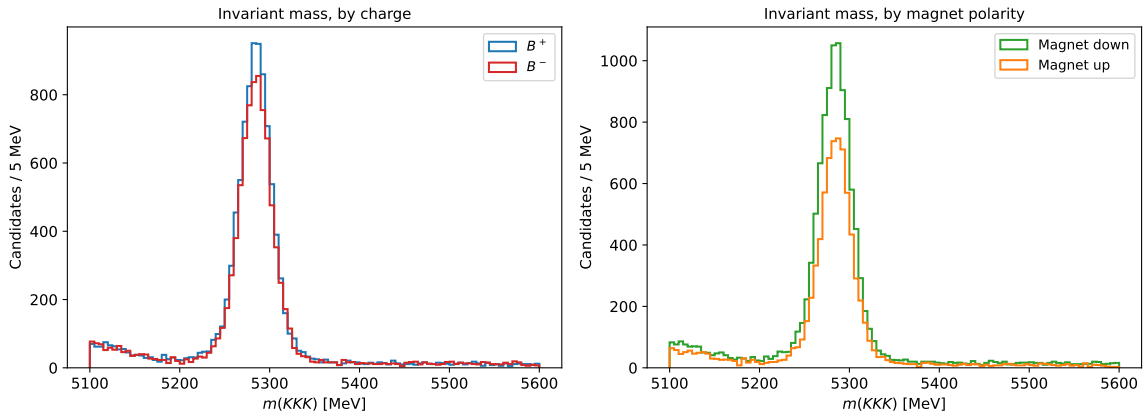



FIG. I. Reconstructed $B \to KKK$ invariant mass in the nominal fit window $[5100, 5600]$ MeV, split by $B$ charge (left) and by magnet polarity (right). Both splits show a consistent peak at $m \approx 5284$ MeV over a falling combinatorial background, which rises below ∼5150 MeV.

### A. Model and Priors

The Bayesian analysis describes the mass spectrum with a signal-plus-background mixture

$$f(m) = N_s\, S(m;\mu,\sigma) + N_b\, B(m;\lambda),$$

with $S$ a truncated Gaussian and $B$ a truncated exponential, both normalized on the fit window $[5150, 5450]$ MeV (Sec. II B). The signal yield is split between the two $B$-meson charges through a simultaneous parametrization, $N_s^+ = N_s(1-A)/2$ and $N_s^- = N_s(1+A)/2$, so that $A = (N_s^- - N_s^+)/(N_s^- + N_s^+)$ is a fit parameter rather than being derived from two independent yields; the background is assumed to be shared equally between charges, $N_b^\pm = N_b/2$. The likelihood is the extended unbinned likelihood of both charge samples, Eq. (4).

The full parameter vector is $\theta = (N_s, N_b, A, \mu, \sigma, \lambda)$, with independent bounded-uniform priors: $N_s, N_b \in (0, 5N)$ with $N = 17839$ the number of selected events, $A \in (-1, 1)$, $\mu \in (5260, 5310)$ MeV, $\sigma \in (3, 40)$ MeV, $\lambda \in (10^{-5}, 0.05)$ MeV$^{-1}$. Bounds and the walker starting point were chosen from the preselected mass spectrum (peak at $\mu \approx 5283$ MeV). A flat prior is not uninformative in an absolute sense, since it is not invariant under reparametrization (a prior uniform in $\lambda$ is not uniform in $1/\lambda$); with $\sim 10^4$ events, however, the posterior is dominated by the likelihood, as the prior-sensitivity check of Sec. IV F confirms for $A$.

Given the data $D = \{(m_i, q_i)\}_{i=1}^{N}$ (mass and charge of each candidate), Bayes' theorem gives the posterior

$$p(\theta \mid D) = \frac{\mathcal{L}(D \mid \theta)\, \pi(\theta)}{p(D)}, \tag{3}$$

with the extended likelihood of the two charge samples

$$\mathcal{L}(D \mid \theta) \propto e^{-(N_s+N_b)} \prod_{i:\, q_i=+1} \Big[ N_s^+ S(m_i) + \tfrac{N_b}{2} B(m_i) \Big] \times \prod_{i:\, q_i=-1} \Big[ N_s^- S(m_i) + \tfrac{N_b}{2} B(m_i) \Big], \tag{4}$$

where $S(m_i) \equiv S(m_i;\mu,\sigma)$, $B(m_i) \equiv B(m_i;\lambda)$, and $N_s^\pm = N_s(1 \mp A)/2$. The prior factorizes into the uniform densities above,

$$\pi(\theta) = \prod_{k=1}^{6} \frac{\mathbf{1}\,[\theta_k \in (a_k, b_k)]}{b_k - a_k}, \tag{5}$$

so inside the bounds the posterior is proportional to the likelihood. The evidence $p(D)$ is a constant normalization: the MCMC samples $\mathcal{L}\,\pi$ without computing it, and the Savage-Dickey ratio of Sec. IV D avoids computing it as well. The marginal posterior of the asymmetry is obtained by integrating out the five nuisance parameters, $p(A \mid D) = \int p(\theta \mid D)\, dN_s\, dN_b\, d\mu\, d\sigma\, d\lambda$; with MCMC this amounts to taking the histogram of the $A$ component of the chain.

### B. MCMC Sampling and Convergence Diagnostics

The posterior was sampled with the affine-invariant ensemble sampler of Goodman and Weare [5] as implemented in `emcee` [6], with 32 walkers initialized in a narrow ball around the starting point and run for 9000 steps with the first 1500 (∼1/6) discarded as burn-in, leaving $2.4 \times 10^5$ samples. The mean acceptance fraction is 0.52. Convergence was checked through the integrated autocorrelation time of each parameter, $\tau = 1 + 2\sum_{t \geq 1} \rho(t)$, with $\rho(t)$ the autocorrelation of the chain at lag $t$. We find $\tau \in [58, 79]$ steps: the post-burn-in chain is $N/\tau \geq 95$ autocorrelation times long for every parameter, above the

threshold of 50 recommended for a reliable estimate of $\tau$ [6], and corresponds to $\gtrsim 3000$ effectively independent samples per parameter. To check that the chain is not trapped near its starting point, the fit was repeated twice with the 32 walkers initialized uniformly over the whole prior box: all walkers reach the bulk of the posterior within $\sim$200 steps, well inside the burn-in, and the two runs give $A_{\rm raw} = -0.0498$ and $-0.0496$ with the same intervals and the same values of all other parameters as the nominal fit. The posterior has a single mode.

### C. Posterior Results and Credible Intervals

The marginal posterior on the raw asymmetry gives (median and equal-tailed credible intervals)

$$A_{\rm raw} = -0.0497,$$
$$68\%\ \text{CI}\ [-0.058, -0.041], \qquad 95\%\ \text{CI}\ [-0.066, -0.033].$$

The posterior is very close to Gaussian, with standard deviation 0.0083; its 68% interval is symmetric about the median to within 0.0002, so the equal-tailed intervals coincide with the highest-posterior-density ones at the quoted precision. Since the priors are uniform, the posterior is proportional to the likelihood inside the bounds and its mode (the MAP estimate) coincides with the maximum-likelihood estimate; for a near-Gaussian posterior mode, median and mean agree, so this result can be compared directly with a frequentist fit of the same model. The result has the same sign and order of magnitude as the published $A_{CP}(KKK) = -0.037 \pm 0.002\,(\text{stat}) \pm 0.002\,(\text{syst}) \pm 0.003\,(J/\psi K)$ [1, 2], which is the most that can be expected without the corrections of Eq. (2). The fitted yields are $N_s = 15281 \pm 130$ and $N_b = 2555 \pm 65$, with $\mu = 5284.41 \pm 0.16$ MeV and $\sigma = 17.95 \pm 0.13$ MeV (Fig. II).

### D. Bayes Factor: $A = 0$ vs $A$ Free

Computing the evidence of each hypothesis by direct numerical integration is impractical for a 6-parameter posterior. Since $H_0$ ($A = 0$) is nested in $H_1$ ($A$ free) and the priors on the other parameters are shared, the Bayes factor reduces to the Savage-Dickey density ratio [7],

$$BF_{01} = \frac{p(A = 0 \mid \text{data})}{\pi(A = 0)}, \qquad \pi(A = 0) = \tfrac{1}{2}.$$

With equal prior probabilities for the two hypotheses, $BF_{01}$ is also the posterior odds of $H_0$ against $H_1$. $A = 0$ lies 6.0 posterior standard deviations from the median, deep in a tail where the chain contains essentially no samples. Estimating $p(A = 0 \mid \text{data})$ with a Gaussian KDE on the $A$ chain is therefore unreliable: at the Silverman bandwidth it gives $BF_{01} \approx 3 \times 10^{-59}$, and rescaling the bandwidth by 0.5–3 moves the result between $10^{-228}$ and $10^{-9}$, since the KDE value at $A = 0$ only reflects the kernel tails of the few most extreme samples. A more meaningful estimate uses the Gaussian approximation of the marginal posterior (Sec. IV C), with the mean and standard deviation of the chain, giving $BF_{01} \approx 2 \times 10^{-6}$ ($\ln BF_{10} \approx 13$): decisive evidence against $A = 0$ on Jeffreys' scale [8] ($BF_{10} > 100$), as is every KDE value above. As for any Bayes factor of a point null against a free parameter, the value scales with the prior width – the Ockham factor built into the Bayes factor, which penalizes a free parameter in proportion to the prior volume it is allowed to explore, and the mechanism behind Lindley's paradox: with the narrower prior $A \in (-0.3, 0.3)$ of Sec. IV F, $\pi(A = 0)$ grows to 1/0.6 and $BF_{01}$ drops by a factor 3.3, which leaves the conclusion unchanged.

### E. Goodness-of-Fit and Signal Model Comparison

A binned comparison of data and posterior-median model ($\chi^2 = \sum(\text{obs} - \text{exp})^2/\text{exp}$ over 30 mass bins per charge) shows that the minimal Gaussian signal model does not fully describe the data: $\chi^2/\text{ndof} = 127.4/54 = 2.36$ ($p = 7 \times 10^{-8}$), with $\chi^2 = 80.4$ for $B^+$ and 47.1 for $B^-$. The largest positive pulls, in the $B^+$ sample, sit on the two flanks of the peak, about $\pm 3\sigma$ from $\mu$ (Fig. III): the observed signal shape has heavier tails than a Gaussian. We therefore also fit a Crystal Ball shape [9], a Gaussian core with a power-law low-mass tail,

$$S_{\rm CB}(x) \propto \begin{cases} e^{-x^2/2}, & x > -\beta, \\ \left(\frac{m}{\beta}\right)^m e^{-\beta^2/2} \left(\frac{m}{\beta} - \beta - x\right)^{-m}, & x \le -\beta, \end{cases} \tag{6}$$

with $x = (m_{KKK} - \mu)/\sigma$, $\beta$ the point where the tail starts (in units of $\sigma$) and $m$ its power. Table I compares three signal shapes. With the tail parameters fixed to typical values ($\beta = 1.5$, $m = 3$) the fit gets worse, not better. Letting $\beta$ and $m$ float (an 8-parameter fit) improves $\chi^2/\text{ndof}$ to $103.8/52 = 2.00$ ($p = 3 \times 10^{-5}$), with $\beta = 1.83$ and $m = 12.4$, i.e. a tail specific to this dataset. Across the three models $A_{\rm raw}$ changes by at most 0.0015, a fifth of its statistical uncertainty, so the asymmetry does not depend on the signal shape even though none of the models reaches $\chi^2/\text{ndof} \approx 1$.

| Signal model | $A_{\rm raw}$ | 68% CI | $\chi^2/\text{ndof}$ |
|---|---|---|---|
| Gaussian | $-0.0497$ | $[-0.058, -0.041]$ | 2.36 |
| Crystal Ball (fixed $\beta, m$) | $-0.0512$ | $[-0.059, -0.043]$ | 4.50 |
| Crystal Ball (free $\beta, m$) | $-0.0504$ | $[-0.059, -0.042]$ | 2.00 |

TABLE I. $A_{\rm raw}$ and goodness-of-fit for three signal models.

### F. Robustness Checks

The nominal fit was repeated under three alternative modeling choices – a narrower window

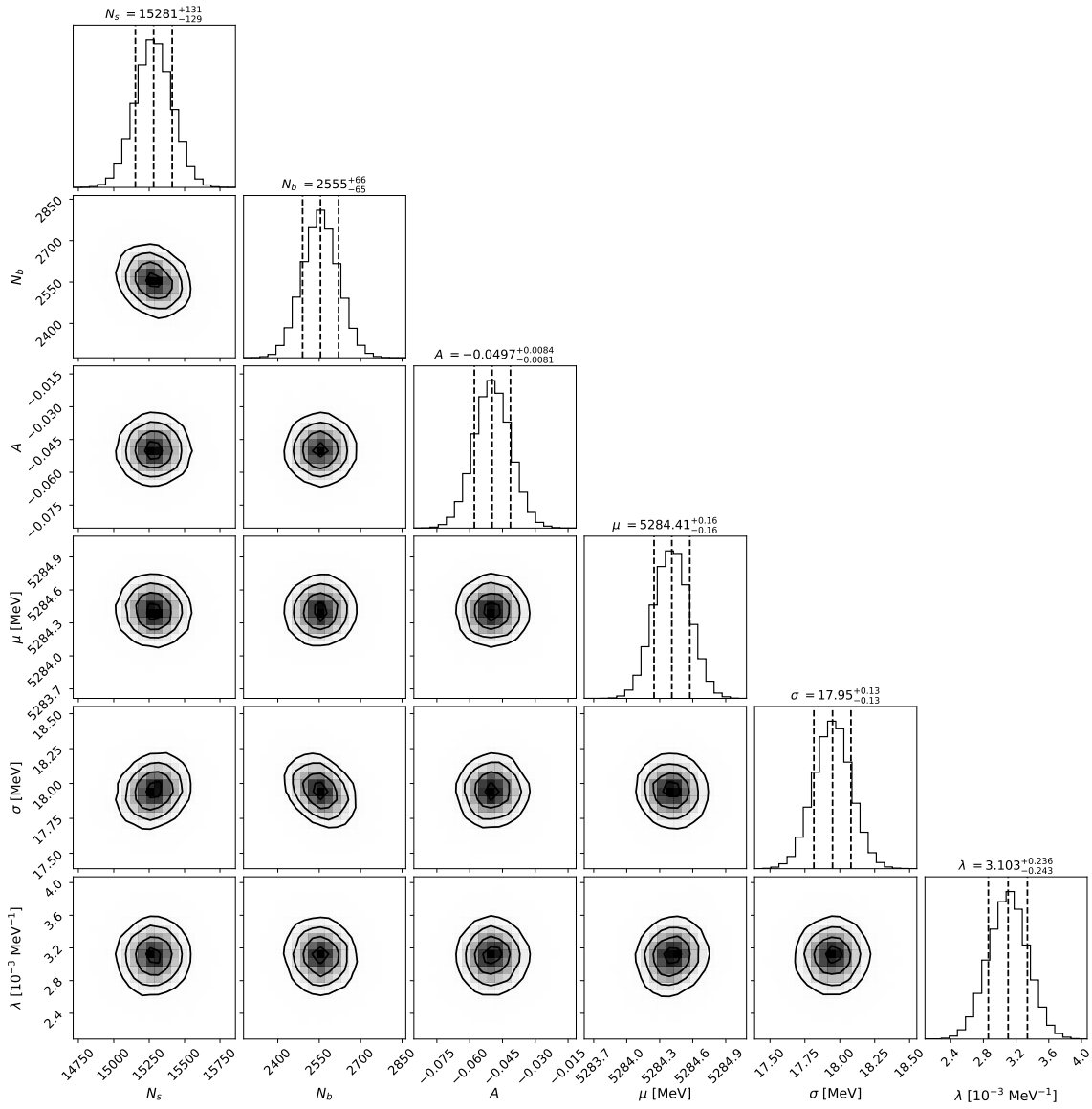



FIG. II. Posterior of the six parameters, nominal fit. Diagonal: marginal posteriors with the 16th, 50th and 84th percentiles (dashed lines and titles). Off-diagonal: 2D marginals, contours at the $0.5, 1, 1.5, 2\sigma$ levels of a 2D Gaussian. $A$ is essentially uncorrelated with the other parameters.

([5200, 5450] MeV), a window without the sparse high-mass tail ([5150, 5400] MeV), and a linear instead of exponential background – and with a narrower prior on the asymmetry, $A \in (-0.3, 0.3)$, as a prior-sensitivity check. All four use the nominal chain length (9000 steps, 32 walkers). They give $A_{\rm raw} \in [-0.0498, -0.0495]$ (Table III): the spread, $3 \times 10^{-4}$, is about 4% of the statistical uncertainty and only about twice the Monte Carlo error on the posterior median ($\sim 1.4 \times 10^{-4}$), so no sensitivity to these choices is detected.

As an experimental cross-check, the fit was repeated separately on the two magnet polarities, whose left-right detection asymmetries are opposite and partially cancel in the combined sample: $A_{\rm raw}(\text{down}) = -0.055$ ($[-0.065, -0.044]$, $n = 10500$) and $A_{\rm raw}(\text{up}) = -0.043$ ($[-0.056, -0.030]$, $n = 7339$). They differ by $0.7\sigma$, so there is no indication that the asymmetry is an artifact of one polarity (Fig. IV).

The assumption of a charge-symmetric background, $N_b^{\pm} = N_b/2$, is the strongest one in the model, and the data do not support it well. The sidebands ($|m-\mu| > 4\sigma$, where the signal contribution is small) have a counting asymmetry $A_{\rm sideband} = -0.047 \pm 0.029$ ($n = 1217$); and the counting asymmetry of the whole fit window, $A_{\rm count} = -0.049$ (Sec. II C), is as large as $A_{\rm raw}$ itself, whereas a symmetric background would dilute it to $A_{\rm raw}\, N_s/(N_s + N_b) \approx -0.043$. We therefore repeated the nominal fit with independent background yields, $N_b^{\pm} =$

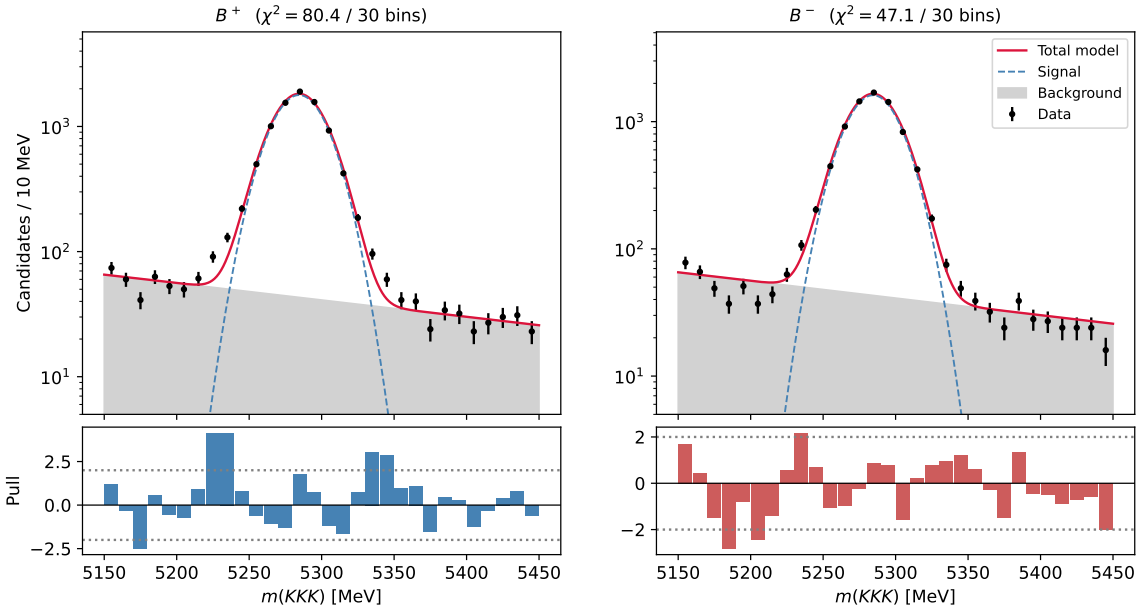



FIG. III. Mass distributions of $B^+$ (left) and $B^-$ (right) candidates with the nominal model (posterior medians): total, signal and background components. Bottom: pulls, (obs − exp)/$\sqrt{\text{exp}}$.

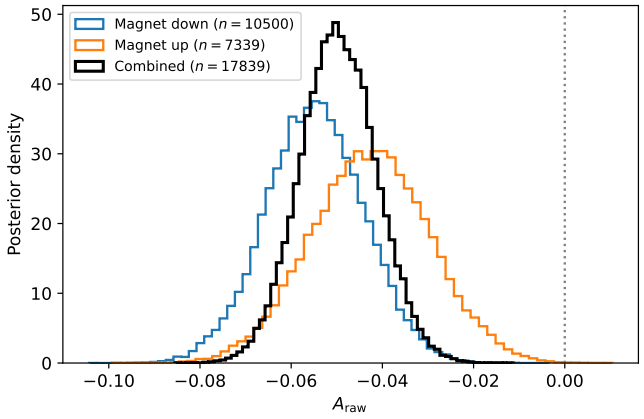



FIG. IV. Posterior of $A_{\text{raw}}$ for the magnet-down, magnet-up and combined samples.

$N_b(1 \mp A_b)/2$, adding the background asymmetry $A_b$ as a seventh parameter with a uniform prior on $(-1, 1)$ (same sampler settings; $\tau \leq 79$, acceptance 0.49). The result is

$$A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0457, \quad 68\%\ \text{CI}\ [-0.054, -0.037],$$
$$A_b = -0.071 \pm 0.024,$$

with a correlation of $-0.16$ between $A$ and $A_b$. The background asymmetry differs from zero by $2.9\sigma$, and allowing for it moves $A_{\text{raw}}$ by $+0.004$, half of its statistical uncertainty – a larger effect than any other variation in this section. In Bayesian terms the evidence for $A_b \neq 0$ is nonetheless weak: the Savage-Dickey ratio gives $BF_{10} \approx 2.2$, "barely worth mentioning" on Jeffreys' scale [8], because the Ockham factor of the wide prior on $A_b$ penalizes the extra parameter (Sec. IV D). The frequentist fit of Sec. III uses independent background yields for the two charges as well.

Finally, the sample contains $B^\pm$ decays through intermediate charm states, $B^\pm \to D^0 K^\pm$, $J/\psi K^\pm$ and $\chi_{c0} K^\pm$ with $D^0$, $J/\psi$, $\chi_{c0} \to K^+K^-$, which are not charmless and are visible as peaks in the opposite-sign $m(K^+K^-)$ spectrum. Vetoing candidates with either opposite-sign pair within $\pm 30$ MeV of the $D^0$ mass removes 830 candidates and moves $A_{\text{raw}}$ to $-0.0549$ ($[-0.063, -0.046]$); the removed candidates have a counting asymmetry of $+0.03 \pm 0.03$, compatible with zero, and dilute the charmless one. Vetoing the $J/\psi$ and $\chi_{c0}$ bands as well (2393 candidates in total) gives $A_{\text{raw}} = -0.0509$ ($[-0.060, -0.042]$). The treatment of the charm contributions is therefore a second model dependence of up to half the statistical uncertainty, in the opposite direction to the background-asymmetry one.

### G. Toy-MC Coverage Validation

A credible interval states where the parameter lies given the data and the prior; nothing guarantees that it also has frequentist coverage, i.e. that over repeated experiments it contains the true value with the stated probability. To check this, 500 pseudo-datasets of the same size as the data were generated from the fitted model (parametric bootstrap, with the posterior-median $\theta$ as ground truth) and each was refit with a 3500-step chain. The fraction of replicas whose interval contains the injected $A$ is 0.664 for the 68% CI ($0.8\sigma$ below nominal, binomial uncertainty 0.021) and 0.962 for the 95% CI ($1.2\sigma$

above nominal): the coverage is consistent with nominal. The estimates themselves are unbiased and their spread matches the reported uncertainty (Fig. V): their mean differs from the injected value by $-0.0005 \pm 0.0004$, and their standard deviation, 0.0080, agrees with the posterior standard deviation of the data fit, 0.0083. This is a closure test of the inference procedure: since the toys are generated from the same model that is fitted, it does not probe the model mismatch of Sec. IV E, which is instead addressed by the signal-model and robustness checks.

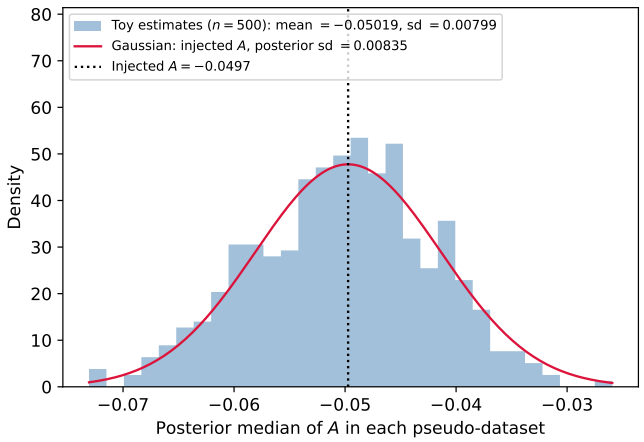



FIG. V. Posterior medians of $A$ in the 500 pseudo-datasets, compared with a Gaussian centred on the injected value with width equal to the posterior standard deviation of the data fit.

### H. Local Dalitz-Plot Asymmetry (Fixed Binning)

To test whether the asymmetry is uniform over phase space or concentrated in specific regions, each candidate was placed in the Dalitz plane using the two opposite-sign $K^+K^-$ invariant masses $m^2(H1, H2)$ and $m^2(H1, H3)$ (Sec. II A), sorted into $m^2_{\rm lo}$ and $m^2_{\rm hi}$ to remove the $H2/H3$ labeling ambiguity. The plane was divided into an $8 \times 8$ grid. In each bin with at least 20 candidates (29 of 64), the local asymmetry $A_i = (N_i^- - N_i^+)/N_i$, with binomial uncertainty $\sigma(A_i) = \sqrt{(1 - A_i^2)/N_i}$, was compared with the global counting asymmetry $A_{\rm glob} = -0.049$ through $S_i = (A_i - A_{\rm glob})/\sigma(A_i)$; a comparison with zero would instead mostly reflect the global asymmetry itself.

Three of the 29 bins have $|S_i| > 3$, all with $A_i$ more negative than the global value; about 0.08 would be expected if the asymmetry were uniform, with a probability of $7 \times 10^{-5}$ for three or more. A global test of homogeneity, $\chi^2 = \sum_i S_i^2 = 85.6$ for 28 degrees of freedom ($p \approx 10^{-7}$), confirms that the local asymmetry is not uniform. The most negative bins lie at low $m^2_{\rm lo}$ (Fig. VI). Restricting the sample to the signal window ($|m - \mu| < 2\sigma$, $n$ = 15,119, ≈96% signal purity from the fitted model) gives the same picture – 29 populated bins, three with $|S_i| > 3$, $\chi^2 = 95.5/28$ – so the structure is not produced by the combinatorial background. Nor is it produced by the charm contributions: with the $D^0$ veto the same three bins exceed $3\sigma$ ($\chi^2 = 82.8/28$), and with all three charm vetoes two of them remain ($\chi^2 = 76.7/28$, $p = 2 \times 10^{-6}$); in particular, the significant bin at $2 < m^2_{\rm lo} < 4$ GeV$^2$, which contains the $D^0$ band at $m^2 = 3.5$ GeV$^2$, keeps its significance once the band is removed. Three caveats apply: the binning is coarse and was not optimized; the asymmetries are computed on all candidates, without the sWeight-based background subtraction that a full analysis would use (Sec. VII); and, since $A_{\rm raw}$ is not corrected for detection asymmetries, local variations can also be instrumental – the $K^+/K^-$ detection asymmetry depends on the kaon momenta, which are correlated with the position in the Dalitz plane. Section V E revisits the same question with an adaptive, data-driven binning ($K$-means).

## V. MACHINE LEARNING MODULE

As a complementary, purely data-driven approach to the signal/background separation used in the mass fits (Secs. III–IV), a supervised classifier was trained on weak labels derived from the mass sidebands and applied to study whether an ML-assisted event selection biases $A_{\rm raw}$, and whether it can resolve local Dalitz-plot structure that a fixed binning would miss.

### A. Weak Labels and Feature Set

No candidate carries a true signal/background label, so the classifiers are trained with weak labels, following the classification-without-labels (CWoLa) approach [10]: a classifier is trained to separate two *mixed* samples with different signal fractions, here a signal-enriched window around the $B$ peak and the mass sidebands. If, within each class, the feature distributions are the same in the two samples, the optimal classifier between the two mixtures is a monotonic function of the signal-to-background likelihood ratio $p_s(x)/p_b(x)$, i.e. it is also the optimal signal/background classifier [10]. The assumption fails if the features are correlated with the $B$ mass: the reconstructed mass is not an input feature, but the nine momentum components of the three kaons determine it, so a flexible model could learn the mass from them, separate the two mass regions rather than signal from background, and *sculpt* the mass distribution of the background that passes a cut on its score.

The labels were built from the same mass model as the Bayesian fit (Sec. IV A, $\mu = 5284.4$, $\sigma = 17.95$ MeV). Events with $|m - \mu| < 2\sigma$ (i.e. $m \in [5248.5, 5320.3]$ MeV) are labeled signal-like; events with $|m - \mu| > 4\sigma$ (outside $[5212.6, 5356.2]$ MeV, within the fit window) are labeled background-like; the intermediate 2–4$\sigma$ gap is left unlabeled and excluded, to keep the two classes cleanly sepa-

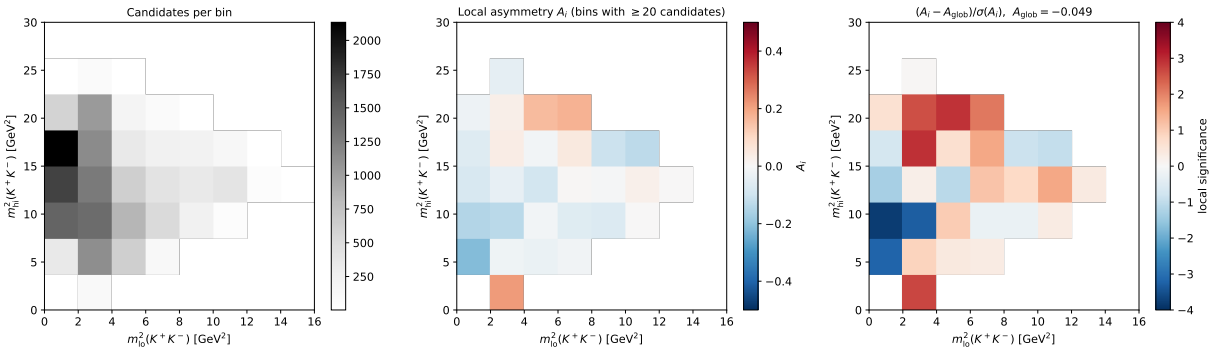



FIG. VI. Fixed $8 \times 8$ Dalitz-plot binning, all candidates in the fit window: number of candidates per bin (left), local asymmetry $A_i$ for bins with $\geq 20$ candidates (centre), and local significance with respect to the global asymmetry, $(A_i - A_{\rm glob})/\sigma(A_i)$ (right). The bins with $|S_i| > 3$ (dark blue) lie at low $m^2_{\rm lo}$.

rated. This gives $n_{\rm labeled} = 16336$ events, of which 15119 are signal-like and only 1217 background-like (imbalance ratio 0.080) – a severe class imbalance, handled downstream with `class_weight='balanced'` for the scikit-learn models, a sample-weight approximation for GBM (which has no native `class_weight` support), and explicit class weights in the Keras loss for the FFNN.

The feature set consists of the 6 per-track kinematic/PID variables (`PX`, `PY`, `PZ`, `ProbK`, `ProbPi`, `IPChi2`) for each of the 3 final-state tracks (18 features), plus two $B$-candidate variables not used in the preselection: `B_FlightDistance` and `B_VertexChi2`, both standard LHCb combinatorial-background discriminants (a genuine $B$ flies further before decaying and has a better-reconstructed vertex than a random track combination). Both separate the weak-label classes significantly (Kolmogorov-Smirnov $p < 10^{-35}$ for each) and are not redundant with the per-track features (Spearman $|\rho| < 0.52$ with each of the 18), giving 20 features in total. An exploratory PCA on the standardized features shows 15 of 20 components are needed to reach 90% explained variance – the features carry mostly independent information, so no dimensionality reduction is applied to the models used downstream (PCA is kept as a diagnostic only). The labeled sample was split 60/20/20 into train/validation/test, stratified on the label, with the scaler fit on the training set only.

### B. Model Comparison

Five classifier families were trained: logistic regression (linear baseline), a single decision tree, Random Forest, Gradient Boosting, and a feed-forward neural network (two hidden layers, 32–16 units, dropout 0.2). The models are compared through the area under the ROC curve (AUC), which equals the probability that a randomly chosen signal-like event receives a higher score than a randomly chosen background-like one (AUC = 0.5 for a random classifier, 1 for a perfect one). Table II summarizes 5-fold cross-validated AUC on the training set (not computed for the FFNN, evaluated on the held-out validation set instead) and AUC on the untouched test set. Two sources of uncertainty limit how finely test AUCs can be compared: the test set contains only 244 background-like events, giving a bootstrap uncertainty of 0.017 on each test AUC, and the FFNN training is not exactly reproducible – retraining it with 10 different random seeds gives a test AUC of $0.770 \pm 0.004$ (mean and standard deviation), compared with 0.7675 for the reference training of Table II.

| Model | CV AUC (train) | Test AUC |
|---|---|---|
| Logistic Regression | $0.7273 \pm 0.0180$ | 0.7326 |
| Logistic Regression (L1) | – | 0.7333 |
| Decision Tree | $0.7470 \pm 0.0213$ | 0.7575 |
| Random Forest | $0.8136 \pm 0.0189$ | **0.8127** |
| Gradient Boosting | $0.8154 \pm 0.0192$ | 0.8127 |
| FFNN | – | 0.7675 |

TABLE II. Cross-validated and test-set AUC for all six models, 20-feature classifier. The two tree ensembles clearly outperform the linear and single-tree baselines; Random Forest and GBM are statistically tied on test AUC, Random Forest is used as the reference model for Secs. V D–V F.

Both ensembles (Random Forest, GBM) improve test AUC by ∼0.05–0.06 over the single decision tree and by ∼0.08 over plain logistic regression, consistent with the mild non-linearity expected in a PID/kinematics-based classifier. Compared with the 18 per-track features alone, the two $B$-candidate features improve every model's AUC, most visibly the linear models (+0.03 for logistic regression) and only marginally the tree ensembles (+0.001–0.002), which already capture part of the same information through non-linear combinations of the per-track variables. Random Forest was selected as the reference model for all downstream analyses (Secs. V D–V F) based on its best CV AUC, essentially tied with GBM on test AUC.

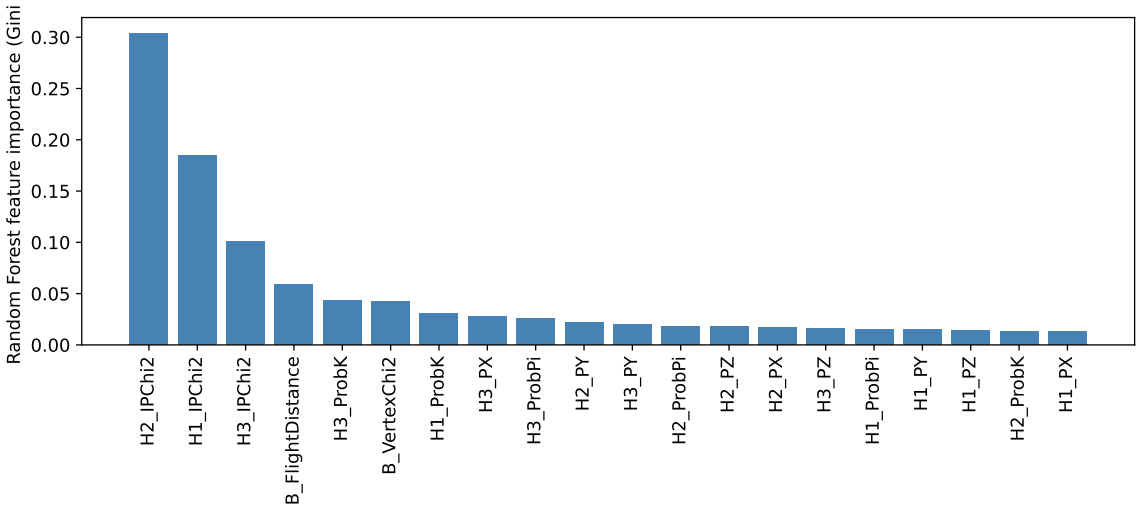



FIG. VII. Random Forest feature importance, defined as the decrease in Gini impurity $G = 1 - \sum_c p_c^2$ ($p_c$ the class fractions in a node) produced by the splits on each feature, averaged over the trees; all 20 features. The three `IPChi2` variables dominate, but `B_FlightDistance` (4th) and `B_VertexChi2` (6th) both rank above most of the per-track PID/kinematic variables – consistent with their separation power on the weak labels (Sec. V A).

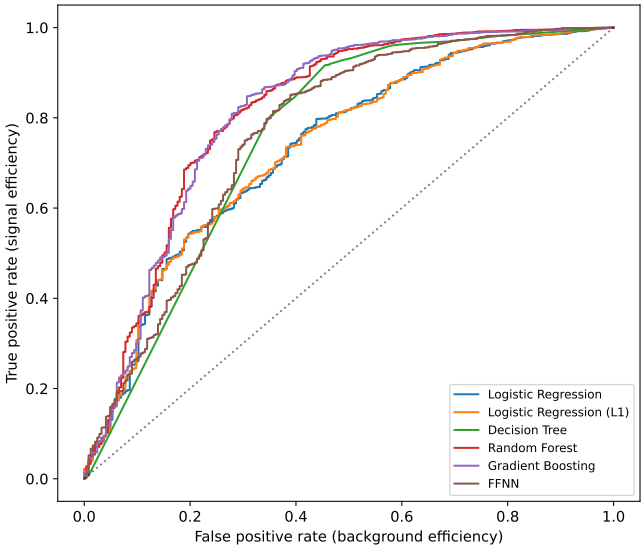



FIG. VIII. ROC curves, test set, all six models (AUC values in Table II). The two tree ensembles dominate the other four across essentially the whole curve. The FFNN curve is from a retraining of the reference configuration (Sec. V B).

### C. Regularization, Bias-Variance, and Calibration

An $L1/L2$ regularization sweep on the logistic regression (log-spaced grid on $C = 1/\alpha$, with CV) finds essentially identical optimal AUC for both penalties ($C_{L1} = 0.024$, AUC $= 0.7280$; $C_{L2} = 45.2$, AUC $= 0.7273$), with 3 of the 20 features driven to exactly zero by the $L1$ penalty: the linear model does not overfit and gains little from regularization, consistent with its comparatively low AUC in Table II.

A bias-variance complexity curve was built for GBM using `staged_predict` (train/test AUC as a function of the number of boosting stages). The train/test AUC gap grows from 0.014 at 20 trees to 0.033 at the final iteration – mild but measurable overfitting as complexity increases, though the gap stays small relative to the overall AUC scale ($\sim$0.81).

The AUC depends only on the ranking of the scores; whether a score can be read as a probability is measured by the Brier score [11], BS $= \frac{1}{N}\sum_i (p_i - y_i)^2$, the mean squared difference between predicted probability $p_i$ and label $y_i \in \{0, 1\}$ (lower is better). Class weights change the probabilities a model learns: a classifier trained with weights $w_s, w_b$ on the two classes converges to $\tilde{p} = w_s p/[w_s p + w_b(1-p)]$ instead of the true $p$, i.e. it describes a world in which the classes are rebalanced. Weighting therefore improves the separation of the minority class but biases the probabilities, which have to be recalibrated on unweighted data. The Brier scores of the six models are: Logistic Regression 0.208, Logistic Regression (L1) 0.212, Decision Tree 0.153, Random Forest 0.132, Gradient Boosting 0.125, FFNN 0.071. Notably the FFNN, despite the lowest AUC of the four nonlinear models, has by far the best-calibrated raw score – a model can rank events well (high AUC) without its output being a trustworthy probability, and vice versa. Applying isotonic recalibration (`CalibratedClassifierCV`) to the reference Random Forest model reduces its Brier score from 0.132 to 0.053 (a 60% reduction): the RF score is a good *ranking* but, uncalibrated, a poor *probability* estimate.

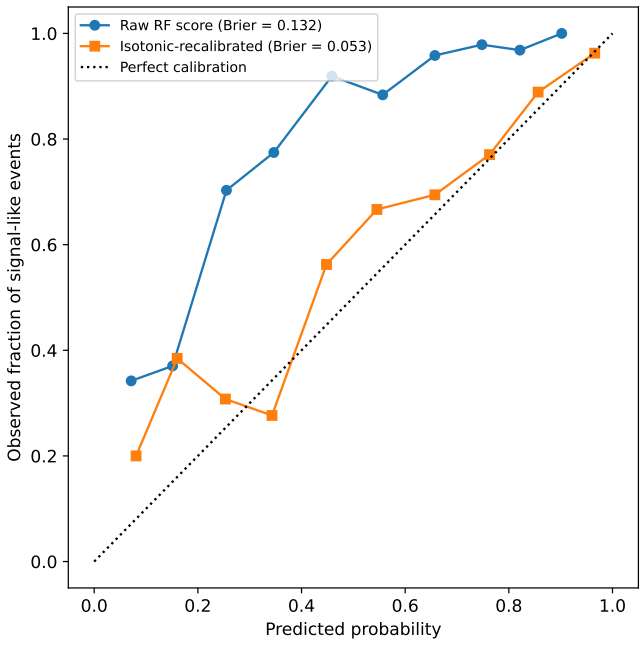



FIG. IX. Reliability diagram for the reference Random Forest, raw score vs. isotonic-recalibrated score. The recalibrated curve tracks the diagonal (perfect calibration) far more closely.

### D. Uncertainty Quantification

The uncertainty of a prediction has two components: *aleatoric*, from the intrinsic overlap of the classes in feature space, which more training data cannot reduce, and *epistemic*, from the limited knowledge of the model parameters, which more training data reduces. Both estimators used here obtain an ensemble of $M$ predictions $p_m(x)$ for each event and quote their spread, $\sigma(x) = \left[\frac{1}{M}\sum_m (p_m(x) - \bar{p}(x))^2\right]^{1/2}$, as the epistemic uncertainty: for the Random Forest the $p_m$ are the $M = 300$ individual trees, each trained on a bootstrap sample; for the FFNN they are $T = 300$ forward passes with dropout kept active at inference (MC dropout), which approximates sampling from a Bayesian posterior over the network weights [12]. Since the FFNN result depends on the training, the MC-dropout figures below are the mean and standard deviation over 10 retrainings with different random seeds. The mean per-event uncertainty is $0.0126 \pm 0.0023$ for MC dropout (range 0.0098–0.0166) and 0.185 for the RF ensemble, a factor $15 \pm 2.5$ (range 11–19) apart in absolute scale.

Two checks were run to understand the discrepancy. First, whether the class imbalance (Sec. V A) inflates RF tree-to-tree variance on the rare background-like class: the mean RF std is 0.196 on background-like test events vs. 0.185 on signal-like – only a ∼6% relative difference, too small to explain the gap. The same comparison for MC dropout shows a much larger relative effect ($0.024 \pm 0.003$ background vs. $0.012 \pm 0.002$ signal, a factor ∼2.1 in every retraining), suggesting the FFNN's epistemic uncertainty is more sensitive to the scarcity of background-like training examples than the RF's is. Second, whether the two methods at least agree on *which* events are most uncertain, independent of absolute scale: the Spearman correlation between per-event MC-dropout and RF-ensemble uncertainty is $\rho = 0.36 \pm 0.02$ ($p < 10^{-70}$ in every retraining) – highly significant but moderate, meaning the two estimates partly agree on which events are most uncertain, but are far from interchangeable.

### E. K-means on the Dalitz Plot

As an adaptive alternative to the fixed Dalitz-plot binning, $K$-means clustering ($K = 8$, matching the fixed-binning granularity for direct comparison) was run on the standardized kinematic features. Repeating the clustering with different random seeds gives an adjusted Rand index of 0.996 between runs, indicating a highly stable partition. Cluster sizes range from $n = 1216$ to $n = 4007$, and the local raw asymmetry $A_{\text{local}}$ per cluster ranges from $-0.139$ to $+0.035$. Of the 8 clusters, exactly one shows a local deviation from zero exceeding $3\sigma$: cluster 2 ($n = 3341$, $A_{\text{local}} = -0.139$). Restricting that cluster to the high-purity signal window ($|m - \mu| < 2\sigma$, $n_{\text{purified}} = 2880$, ∼85% purity) gives $A_{\text{local}} = -0.147$ – the asymmetry survives, and if anything strengthens slightly, after purification, disfavoring background contamination as its origin.

$K$-means partitions the points $x_i$ into $K$ clusters $C_k$ minimizing the within-cluster sum of squares (inertia) $W = \sum_k \sum_{i \in C_k} \|x_i - \bar{x}_k\|^2$, with $\bar{x}_k$ the cluster centroids; $K$ has to be fixed in advance. The silhouette of a point [13], $s_i = (b_i - a_i)/\max(a_i, b_i)$, compares its mean distance $a_i$ to the other points of its cluster with the mean distance $b_i$ to the points of the nearest other cluster; its average over all points ($-1 \le s \le 1$, higher is better) measures how well separated the clusters are. $K = 8$ was chosen for comparability with the fixed binning rather than from a clustering-quality criterion; the elbow (inertia) and silhouette scores over $K = 2$–12 were inspected as a check. The global silhouette optimum is $K = 3$ (0.467), but $K = 8$ sits at a local silhouette maximum (0.410, higher than the neighboring $K = 6, 7$ and $K = 9$–12), so it is not an arbitrary choice, just not the statistically optimal one – a coarser, $K = 3$ partition would likely be less directly comparable to the $8 \times 8$ fixed binning of Sec. IV H.

### F. Stability of $A_{\text{raw}}$ under ML Selection

The reference Random Forest score was applied to *all* events in the fit window (not only the labeled subsample used for training), and the counting asymmetry $A_{\text{raw}}$ was recomputed after cutting at score thresholds from 0.1 to

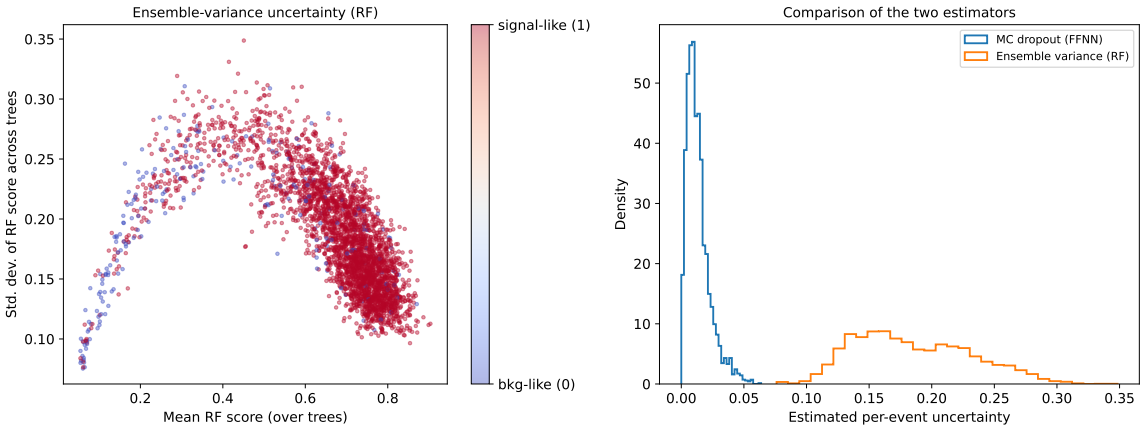



FIG. X. Left: RF ensemble-variance uncertainty vs. mean RF score, per test event (colour = true label). Right: distributions of the two epistemic-uncertainty estimates, MC Dropout (FFNN) and ensemble-variance (RF) – the two histograms barely overlap. The MC-dropout distribution is from a single FFNN training; its mean varies by ∼20% between trainings (see text).

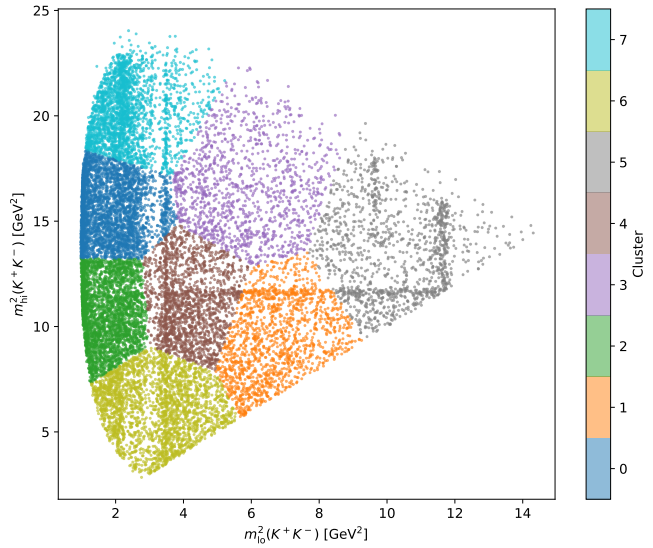



FIG. XI. $K$-means partition of the Dalitz plane ($K = 8$), same $m^2_{\rm lo}/m^2_{\rm hi}$ axes as Fig. VI. Cluster boundaries follow the point density adaptively, unlike the fixed square grid.

0.9, with non-parametric bootstrap uncertainties (resampling the full selected sample and repeating cut+count) at each threshold. Across thresholds 0.1–0.7, $A_{\rm raw}$ stays in a narrow band, $[-0.054, -0.049]$, consistent within uncertainty with the nominal Bayesian fit result ($-0.0497$, Sec. IV C) and with bootstrap errors that are small and stable (0.007–0.010). At threshold 0.8, $A_{\rm raw}$ drifts to $-0.014$, but the bootstrap uncertainty there is also much larger (0.026), so the drift is only $\sim 1.4\sigma$ from nominal – suggestive but not significant. At threshold 0.9 the selection becomes fully degenerate ($A_{\rm raw} = -1$, every surviving event has the same charge, bootstrap uncertainty undefined) – too few events survive to draw any statistical conclusion. Over the range where the selection retains a usable sample size, the ML-based event selection does not introduce a detectable bias on $A_{\rm raw}$. The mass distribution of the candidates passing the cut at 0.5 shows no visible peaking of the background under the signal (the sidebands stay flat), a qualitative indication that the selection does not sculpt the mass spectrum (Sec. V A); a quantitative test, e.g. a fit of the selected sample with a free background shape, is not performed here.

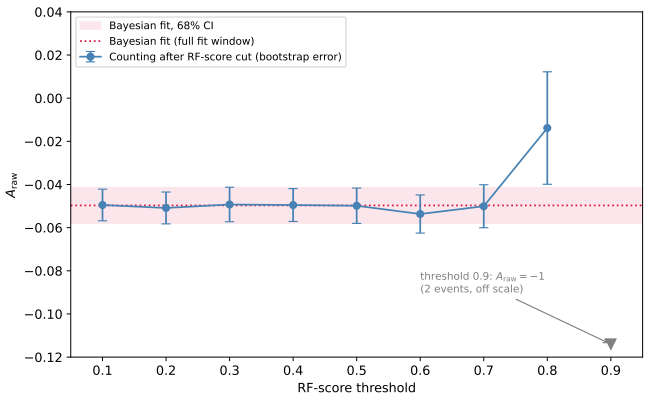



FIG. XII. $A_{\rm raw}$±bootstrap uncertainty vs. RF-score threshold, against the nominal Bayesian fit result (dotted line, shaded 68% CI). Stable through threshold 0.7; at threshold 0.9 only 2 events survive and $A_{\rm raw} = -1$ (marked off scale).

Since the threshold sweep is post-cut counting, it does not test whether the ML selection biases a *fit*-based estimate. To test this, the Bayesian mass model (Sec. IV A) was refit – same parametrization, same MCMC settings (32 walkers, 9000 steps) – on the RF-selected subsample alone (score $> 0.5$, $n = 15204$), instead of counting. The result, $A_{\rm raw} = -0.0493$ (68% CI $[-0.058, -0.041]$), is consistent with both the nominal full-sample fit ($-0.0497$, Sec. IV C) and the simple-counting estimate on the same subsample ($-0.0499$) – the ML selection does not bias

the mass-fit estimate either. **[TODO: frequentist refit on the same ML-selected sample, once Sec. III is final.]**

As with the Bayesian fit (Sec. IV F), the ML-selected sample was also cross-checked by magnet polarity, to test whether the RF cut interacts with the detector's left-right instrumental asymmetry (Sec. IV F) rather than tracking a genuine physical effect. At the representative RF-score threshold of 0.5: $A_{\text{raw}}(\text{down}) = -0.062 \pm 0.011$ ($n = 8871$) and $A_{\text{raw}}(\text{up}) = -0.032 \pm 0.013$ ($n = 6333$). The two are individually somewhat more separated than in the Bayesian check ($\sim 1.8\sigma$ apart here, vs. fully overlapping there), but follow the same sign pattern (down more negative than up) and their 68% intervals still overlap – consistent with the same underlying physical asymmetry seen through a smaller, ML-selected sample, not with a polarity-dependent artifact of the classifier.

## VI. COMPARISON AND DISCUSSION

**[TODO: Shared, written last once §III exists – the one section that genuinely can't be finished without Marco. Headline comparison table: $A_{\text{raw}}$ (counting, frequentist, Bayesian, ML-assisted) with uncertainties, side by side. Comparison with the published $A_{CP}$(KKK) value from Ref. [1] and discussion of why $A_{\text{raw}} \neq A_{CP}$. Local Dalitz-plot asymmetry: fixed binning vs K-means, and whether the frequentist local significance study (if Marco does one) agrees.]**

## VII. LIMITATIONS AND FUTURE WORK

Several modeling choices and known weaknesses limit how far the results of Secs. IV–V can be pushed, and are collected here rather than scattered through the results sections.

On the Bayesian side (Sec. IV): the nominal model assumes a charge-symmetric background, while a fit with independent background yields finds $A_b = -0.071 \pm 0.024$ and shifts $A_{\text{raw}}$ by $+0.004$, while vetoing the $D^0 \to K^+K^-$ contribution shifts it by $-0.005$ (Sec. IV F) – the two largest model dependences observed, neither yet assigned as a systematic uncertainty; the Savage-Dickey Bayes factor of Sec. IV D is known only approximately ($BF_{01} \sim 10^{-6}$ from the Gaussian approximation, KDE estimates unusable this far in the tail) and depends on the prior width, though the conclusion (decisive evidence against $A = 0$) is robust; the toy-MC coverage check of Sec. IV G is a closure test and cannot detect model misspecification; even the best-fitting signal model (Crystal Ball with floated tail parameters) leaves $\chi^2/\text{ndof} \approx 2$, not $\approx 1$ (Sec. IV E); and the fixed-binning Dalitz analysis of Sec. IV H uses a coarse $8 \times 8$ grid, a simple mass-window cut rather than a proper background subtraction, and no correction for momentum-dependent detection asymmetries.

On the machine-learning side (Sec. V): the weak labels suffer from severe class imbalance (1217 background-like vs. 15,119 signal-like events, Sec. V A); the two epistemic-uncertainty estimators (MC Dropout, RF ensemble-variance) disagree by a factor $\sim 15$ in absolute scale and are only moderately correlated event-by-event ($\rho \approx 0.36$, Sec. V D), and the MC-dropout estimate itself varies by $\sim 20\%$ between trainings; the test set is small (0.017 uncertainty on each test AUC), so the hyperparameter searches (Tables V–VI) cannot resolve test-AUC differences of the size observed; and the stability of $A_{\text{raw}}$ under the ML selection was checked with a Bayesian refit only (Sec. V F).

More generally, no detector-level systematic correction (selection efficiency, production asymmetry) is applied anywhere in this work, so $A_{\text{raw}}$ as reported throughout is explicitly *not* a measurement of $A_{CP}$ (Sec. VI).

The most natural next steps, in rough priority order, are: replacing the fixed-cut local Dalitz asymmetries (both binned, Sec. IV H, and $K$-means, Sec. V E) with a proper sWeight-based background subtraction; a background model with independent charge yields and, possibly, a charge-dependent shape; and applying the frequentist fit to the ML-selected sample.

## VIII. CONCLUSIONS

**[TODO: Shared. Short – synthesize ONE key message per method (does not need to restate every number from the Results sections), state what was learned methodologically (e.g. "a minimal Gaussian+exponential model is insufficient, a Crystal Ball with floated shape parameters improves the fit without moving $A_{\text{raw}}$"), not just what was measured.]**

## IX. AUTHOR CONTRIBUTIONS

Marco Belotti led the frequentist analysis (Sec. III): mass model, likelihood fits, and profile-likelihood confidence interval. Giacomo Moretti led the Bayesian analysis (Sec. IV): model definition, MCMC sampling, convergence diagnostics, Bayes factor, and the associated systematic/goodness-of-fit studies. The machine learning analysis (Sec. V), the toy-MC validation, the Dalitz-plot analyses, and the final cross-method comparison (Sec. VI) were carried out jointly. Both authors contributed to the manuscript.

## X. CODE AND DATA AVAILABILITY

All code is written in Python $\geq$3.12. Key package versions: `uproot 5.7`, `iminuit 2.32` **[TODO: Marco**

confirm], `emcee 3.1.6`, `corner 2.3.0`, `scikit-learn 1.9`, `tensorflow 2.21.0`, `keras 3.15.1`, `scipy 1.18`, `numpy 2.4`, `pandas 3.0`.

The dataset is the CERN Open Data record 4900 ("Matter Antimatter Differences – B meson decays to three hadrons"). The analysis code is available in the accompanying repository, in `Code_general/Frequentist/`, `Code_general/Bayesian/`, and `Code_general/Machine_Learning/`; the figures of this paper are produced by `Report/figures/regen_figures.py`.

### Appendix A: Full results tables

**[TODO: Shared. Still needed: frequentist fit results (Table, once Marco has them) alongside the Bayesian nominal row below, for a direct side-by-side comparison.]**

For GBM and the FFNN (Tables V and VI), the configuration with the best *cross-validated* score has a slightly *lower* test AUC than the untuned default (−0.006 for GBM, −0.001 for the FFNN), while for Random Forest both improve (+0.009 on test). The sign of the GBM and FFNN differences is what the "winner's curse" of hyperparameter selection predicts: taking the arg-max over many (100–170) noisy cross-validation estimates overestimates the selected configuration's generalization performance, because the selection favors configurations with a favorable CV fluctuation, and widening the grid enlarges this bias. None of the test-AUC differences is significant, however: all are well below the 0.017 statistical uncertainty of each test AUC, and for the FFNN also below the 0.004 spread between retrainings of the same configuration. The searches therefore show that no tested configuration improves significantly on the defaults; the CV scores of the selected configurations should be read as optimistic estimates of their performance.


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| Variant | $n$ | $A_{\mathrm{raw}}$ (median) | 68% CI |
|---|---|---|---|
| Nominal ([5150, 5450], exp. bkg) | 17839 | $-0.0497$ | $[-0.0579, -0.0413]$ |
| Narrower window ([5200, 5450]) | 17267 | $-0.0497$ | $[-0.0580, -0.0413]$ |
| Shorter high-mass tail ([5150, 5400]) | 17590 | $-0.0498$ | $[-0.0581, -0.0415]$ |
| Linear background | 17839 | $-0.0498$ | $[-0.0581, -0.0415]$ |
| Narrow prior, $A \in [-0.3, 0.3]$ | 17839 | $-0.0495$ | $[-0.0577, -0.0414]$ |
| Independent background yields ($A_b$ free) | 17839 | $-0.0457$ | $[-0.0540, -0.0371]$ |
| $D^0$ veto ($\pm$30 MeV) | 17009 | $-0.0549$ | $[-0.0635, -0.0462]$ |
| $D^0$, $J/\psi$, $\chi_{c0}$ vetoes ($\pm$30 MeV) | 15446 | $-0.0509$ | $[-0.0597, -0.0418]$ |

TABLE III. Bayesian systematic-variation study (Sec. IV F): $A_{\mathrm{raw}}$ under alternative modeling choices and a narrower prior on $A$, each refit with the same chain length as the nominal fit (9000 steps, 32 walkers). The first five medians span $3 \times 10^{-4}$, about 4% of the statistical uncertainty; freeing the background asymmetry shifts $A_{\mathrm{raw}}$ by $+0.004$, and the $D^0$ veto by $-0.005$.

| Model | Test AUC | Brier score | Notes |
|---|---|---|---|
| Logistic Regression | 0.7326 | 0.208 | |
| Logistic Regression (L1) | 0.7333 | 0.212 | |
| Decision Tree | 0.7575 | 0.153 | |
| Random Forest | 0.8127 | 0.132 | AUC tied |
| Gradient Boosting | 0.8127 | 0.125 | AUC tied |
| FFNN | 0.7675 | 0.071 | best Brier |

TABLE IV. Full model comparison (20-feature classifier), test-set AUC and (uncalibrated) Brier score, all six classifiers of Sec. V B. Isotonic recalibration of the Random Forest score reduces its Brier score to 0.053 (Sec. V C).

| Model | Best configuration (repeated-CV grid search) | CV AUC / Test AUC |
|---|---|---|
| Random Forest | `max_depth`= 12, `min_samples_leaf`= 10, `n_estimators`= 1200 | 0.8172 / **0.8212** |
| Gradient Boosting | `learning_rate`= 0.05, `max_depth`= 1, `n_estimators`= 500 | 0.8183 / 0.8066 |

TABLE V. Hyperparameter search results (`RepeatedStratifiedKFold` cross-validation), 20-feature classifier. The grids were extended along every dimension whose optimum fell on a grid boundary. The Random Forest optimum remains at the largest `n_estimators` tested (1200), with diminishing returns; the untuned default is used in Secs. V D–V F. The GBM optimum uses decision stumps (`max_depth`= 1), and its CV AUC gain does not carry over to the test set, where it is slightly below the untuned default of Table II; all test-AUC differences are within the test-set uncertainty (0.017) – see the discussion below.

| Architecture | Layers | Dropout | Learning rate | CV AUC |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| `wide_2layer` (best) | [64, 32] | 0.1 | 0.003 | $0.7701 \pm 0.0209$ |
| `deep_5layer` | [128, 64, 32, 16, 8] | 0.4 | 0.005 | $0.7698 \pm 0.0218$ |
| `deep_4layer` | [128, 64, 32, 16] | 0.1 | 0.005 | $0.7685 \pm 0.0222$ |
| `deep_3layer` | [64, 32, 16] | 0.1 | 0.003 | $0.7677 \pm 0.0204$ |
| `deep_4layer` | [128, 64, 32, 16] | 0.4 | 0.005 | $0.7676 \pm 0.0177$ |

TABLE VI. Top-5 configurations from the FFNN architecture search (7 architectures × 4 dropout rates × 6 learning rates = 168 configurations, learning rates in [0.0002, 0.005], each with 10-fold repeated cross-validation). The top 5 configurations split between learning rates 0.003 and 0.005, consistent with a plateau. However, the best-by-CV configuration's *test* AUC (0.7665) is slightly below the untuned fixed-architecture default (0.7675, Table II), a difference much smaller than the 0.004 spread between retrainings – see the discussion below.